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## CALCULUS PROBLEM SHEET

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- (a) Show that if the columns,  $\mathbf{m}_j$ , of an  $n \times n$  matrix,  $\mathbf{M}$ , are not independent then  $\mathbf{M}$  does not have a unique inverse. For the columns to not be independent implies there exists some set of coefficients  $c_j$ , not all zero, such that

$$\sum_{j=1}^n c_j \mathbf{m}_j = \mathbf{0}.$$

We note that the  $i^{th}$  element of  $\mathbf{m}_j = M_{ij}$  so

$$\forall_{i=1}^n : \sum_{j=1}^n c_j M_{ij} = 0.$$

[Hint: consider acting on the vector  $\mathbf{c}$  whose  $i^{th}$  element is  $c_i$ . Hence show that if  $\mathbf{x}$  is a solution to the equation  $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{x}$  then so is  $\mathbf{x} + b\mathbf{c}$  for any  $c \in \mathbb{R}$ .]

We consider the vector  $\mathbf{c}$  with elements  $c_i$ , then the  $i^{th}$  component of  $\mathbf{M}\mathbf{c}$  is equal to

$$[\mathbf{M}\mathbf{c}]_i = \sum_{j=1}^n M_{ij} c_j = 0$$

or  $\mathbf{M}\mathbf{c} = \mathbf{0}$ . Consequently for any vector  $\mathbf{x}$  and any scalar  $b$  we have that

$$\mathbf{M}(\mathbf{x} + b\mathbf{c}) = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{x}$$

if we denote  $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{x}$ , then there is not a unique vector  $\mathbf{x}$  such that  $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{x}$ , but rather a family of vectors  $\mathbf{x} + b\mathbf{c}$  for any  $b$ .

[3 marks]

- (b) Show that for three  $n \times n$  matrices  $\mathbf{A}$ ,  $\mathbf{B}$  and  $\mathbf{C}$  the inverse of  $\mathbf{ABC}$  is  $\mathbf{C}^{-1}\mathbf{B}^{-1}\mathbf{A}^{-1}$ . You can do this by multiplying the product of matrices by its inverse and using associativity of matrix multiplication

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{C}^{-1}\mathbf{B}^{-1}\mathbf{A}^{-1})(\mathbf{ABC}) &= \mathbf{C}^{-1}\mathbf{B}^{-1}(\mathbf{A}^{-1}\mathbf{A})\mathbf{BC} \\ &= \mathbf{C}^{-1}(\mathbf{B}^{-1}\mathbf{B})\mathbf{C} = \mathbf{C}^{-1}\mathbf{C} = \mathbf{I} \end{aligned}$$

[3 marks]

- (c) For non-square matrices,  $\mathbf{A}$  and  $\mathbf{B}$  we can have  $\mathbf{AB} = \mathbf{I}$  while  $\mathbf{BA} \neq \mathbf{I}$ . Show this is the case for the matrices

$$\mathbf{A} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \qquad \mathbf{B} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

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$$\mathbf{AB} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \end{pmatrix} = \mathbf{I}_1 \qquad \mathbf{BA} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$


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[3 marks]

- (d) For finite-dimensional square matrices if  $\mathbf{AB} = \mathbf{I}$  then  $\mathbf{BA} = \mathbf{I}$ . Thus  $\mathbf{B} = \mathbf{A}^{-1}$ . This is not entirely trivial to prove. We break the proof down. Show that if  $\mathbf{AB} = \mathbf{I}$  then  $\mathbf{B}$  is injective (one-to-one). This means that

$$\mathbf{B}x = \mathbf{B}y \implies x = y. \qquad (1)$$

In other words if  $x \neq y$  then  $\mathbf{B}x$  must be different for  $\mathbf{B}y$ . Assuming  $\mathbf{AB} = \mathbf{I}$  prove equation (1).

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Assume  $\mathbf{B}x = \mathbf{B}y$  and multiply by  $\mathbf{A}$

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{AB}x &= \mathbf{AB}y \\ \mathbf{I}x &= \mathbf{I}y \\ x &= y \end{aligned}$$


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[2 marks]

- (e) Next we want to show that in a finite dimensional space a square matrix that is injective is also surjective (onto). That is, if  $\mathbf{B}$  is injective then for any vector  $\mathbf{y}$  there exists a vector  $\mathbf{x}$  such that  $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{B}\mathbf{x}$ . The reason a finite dimensional square matrix that is injective is also surjective is not so obvious. To prove this we consider a set of  $n$  **basis** vectors that span the entire space  $\mathbb{R}^n$ . We call these  $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \dots, \mathbf{v}_n$ . Because these are independent the only set of numbers  $c_i$  such that  $\sum_i c_i \mathbf{v}_i = \mathbf{0}$  is when  $c_1 = c_2 = \dots = c_n = 0$ . Show that the set of vectors  $\mathbf{v}'_i = \mathbf{B}\mathbf{v}_i$  form a set of basis vectors (i.e. they are linearly independent). This is easily proved by contradiction.

Since  $\mathbf{B}$  is injective and  $\mathbf{v}_i \neq \mathbf{0}$  (since basis vectors are non-zero), clearly  $\mathbf{v}'_i = \mathbf{B}\mathbf{v}_i$  are non-zero. The non-trivial part is to show these vectors are linearly independent. Suppose this is not the case and there exists a set of coefficients  $c'_i$ , not all zero, such that

$$\begin{aligned}\sum_{i=1}^n c'_i \mathbf{v}'_i &= \mathbf{0} \\ \sum_{i=1}^n c'_i \mathbf{B}\mathbf{v}_i &= \mathbf{0} \\ \mathbf{B} \sum_{i=1}^n c'_i \mathbf{v}_i &= \mathbf{0}.\end{aligned}$$

But, as  $\mathbf{B}$  is injective this implies

$$\sum_{i=1}^n c'_i \mathbf{v}_i = \mathbf{0}.$$

Since the vectors  $\mathbf{v}_i$  are linearly independent this implies every  $c'_i = 0$ , contradicting our assumption.

[5 marks]

- (f) Use the fact that the vectors  $\mathbf{v}'_i$  are linearly independent to show that, for any vector  $\mathbf{y}$ , we can find a vector  $\mathbf{x}$  such that  $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{B}\mathbf{x}$

Any vector  $\mathbf{y}$  can be represented by a weighted sum of  $n$  independent vectors. In particular we can write

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{y} &= \sum_{i=1}^n c_i \mathbf{v}'_i = \sum_{i=1}^n c_i \mathbf{B}\mathbf{v}_i \\ &= \mathbf{B} \left( \sum_{i=1}^n c_i \mathbf{v}_i \right) = \mathbf{B}\mathbf{x}\end{aligned}$$

where  $\mathbf{x} = \sum_{i=1}^n c_i \mathbf{v}_i$ .

[2 marks]

(g) Using the fact that  $\mathbf{AB} = \mathbf{I}$  and  $\mathbf{B}$  is surjective show  $\mathbf{BA} = \mathbf{I}$

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We note that for all  $x$

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{AB}x &= x \\ \mathbf{BAB}x &= \mathbf{B}x\end{aligned}$$

But as  $\mathbf{B}$  is surjective for any vector  $y$  there exists a vector  $x$  such that  $y = \mathbf{B}x$ . Thus,

$$\mathbf{BA}y = y,$$

but as this is true for any vector  $y$  it follows that  $\mathbf{BA} = \mathbf{I}$ .

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[2 marks]

End of question 1

• Do not write in this space •

2 Throughout this question you may use two standard properties of the trace, namely that a matrix and its transpose have the same trace, and that the trace is unchanged by cyclically permuting a product

$$\text{tr } \mathbf{A} = \text{tr } \mathbf{A}^T$$

$$\text{tr } \mathbf{AB} = \text{tr } \mathbf{BA}.$$

(a) For a vector  $\mathbf{a} \in \mathbb{R}^m$ , a vector  $\mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^n$  and an  $m \times n$  matrix  $\mathbf{U}$ , show that

$$\mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{U} \mathbf{b} = \text{tr } (\mathbf{U}^T \mathbf{a} \mathbf{b}^T).$$

We can show this by writing out this in terms of components (as we did in the lectures), however, we can do this much faster by treating  $\mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{U} \mathbf{b}$  as a  $1 \times 1$  matrix which is equal to its trace:  $\text{tr } \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{U} \mathbf{b}$ .

Thus

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{U} \mathbf{b} &= \text{tr } \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{U} \mathbf{b} \\ &= \text{tr } (\mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{U} \mathbf{b})^T = \text{tr } \mathbf{b}^T \mathbf{U}^T \mathbf{a} \\ &= \text{tr } \mathbf{U}^T \mathbf{a} \mathbf{b}^T \end{aligned}$$

[5 marks]

(b) Verify the identity explicitly for

$$\mathbf{a} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} \quad \mathbf{b} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \quad \mathbf{U} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

by computing both  $\mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{U} \mathbf{b}$  and  $\text{tr } (\mathbf{U}^T \mathbf{a} \mathbf{b}^T)$ .

For the left-hand side,

$$\mathbf{U} \mathbf{b} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 5 \\ 13 \end{pmatrix} \quad \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{U} \mathbf{b} = (1 \ 2) \begin{pmatrix} 5 \\ 13 \end{pmatrix} = 5 + 26 = 31.$$

For the right-hand side, the outer product is

$$\mathbf{a} \mathbf{b}^T = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} (3 \ 1) = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 \\ 6 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

and hence

$$\mathbf{U}^T \mathbf{a} \mathbf{b}^T = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 \\ 2 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 \\ 6 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 21 & 7 \\ 30 & 10 \end{pmatrix}$$

whose trace is  $21 + 10 = 31$ , agreeing with the left-hand side.

Note that only the diagonal elements are needed, so the off-diagonal entries 7 and 30 need never be computed. Note also that  $\mathbf{U}$  is not symmetric: had the transpose been omitted the two sides would not have agreed, which is the point of checking with a non-symmetric matrix.

[4 marks]

- (c) For a square matrix  $\mathbf{U}$  and a sufficiently small scalar  $\epsilon$ , the inverse of  $\mathbf{I} + \epsilon\mathbf{U}$  is given by the geometric (Neumann) series

$$(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon\mathbf{U})^{-1} = \mathbf{I} - \epsilon\mathbf{U} + \epsilon^2\mathbf{U}^2 - \epsilon^3\mathbf{U}^3 + \dots.$$

Show this by multiplying  $\mathbf{I} + \epsilon\mathbf{U}$  by the truncated series

$$\mathbf{S}_n = \sum_{k=0}^n (-\epsilon)^k \mathbf{U}^k$$

and showing that the result differs from  $\mathbf{I}$  only at order  $\epsilon^{n+1}$ . Hence write down  $(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon\mathbf{U})^{-1}$  to first order in  $\epsilon$ .

Multiplying out, and using  $\epsilon(-\epsilon)^k = -(-\epsilon)^{k+1}$ ,

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{I} + \epsilon\mathbf{U})\mathbf{S}_n &= \sum_{k=0}^n (-\epsilon)^k \mathbf{U}^k + \epsilon\mathbf{U} \sum_{k=0}^n (-\epsilon)^k \mathbf{U}^k \\ &= \sum_{k=0}^n (-\epsilon)^k \mathbf{U}^k - \sum_{k=0}^n (-\epsilon)^{k+1} \mathbf{U}^{k+1} \\ &= \sum_{k=0}^n (-\epsilon)^k \mathbf{U}^k - \sum_{j=1}^{n+1} (-\epsilon)^j \mathbf{U}^j. \end{aligned}$$

The two sums are identical except for the  $k = 0$  term of the first and the  $j = n + 1$  term of the second, so everything between telescopes and

$$(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon\mathbf{U})\mathbf{S}_n = \mathbf{I} - (-\epsilon)^{n+1} \mathbf{U}^{n+1}.$$

The correction is of order  $\epsilon^{n+1}$ , so  $\mathbf{S}_n$  is the inverse up to that order, and taking  $n \rightarrow \infty$  gives the full series provided  $\epsilon$  is small enough that  $\epsilon^n \mathbf{U}^n \rightarrow \mathbf{0}$  (it suffices that  $|\epsilon|$  is smaller than the reciprocal of the largest magnitude eigenvalue of  $\mathbf{U}$ ).

Keeping only the first two terms,

$$(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon\mathbf{U})^{-1} = \mathbf{I} - \epsilon\mathbf{U} + \mathcal{O}(\epsilon^2).$$

[5 marks]

- (d) Use this to find the derivative of  $g(\mathbf{X}) = \mathbf{a}^\top \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{b}$  with respect to the matrix  $\mathbf{X}$ . Replace  $\mathbf{X}$  by  $\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U}$ , expand to first order in  $\epsilon$ , and use the definition of the derivative with respect to a matrix

$$\lim_{\epsilon \rightarrow 0} \frac{g(\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U}) - g(\mathbf{X})}{\epsilon} = \text{tr} \left( \mathbf{U}^\top \frac{\partial g(\mathbf{X})}{\partial \mathbf{X}} \right)$$

which holds for every  $\mathbf{U}$ . Part (a) is what lets you read the derivative off.

Factorising  $\mathbf{X}$  out on the left,  $\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U} = \mathbf{X}(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U})$ , so by the previous part

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U})^{-1} &= (\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^{-1} = (\mathbf{I} - \epsilon \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U} + O(\epsilon^2)) \mathbf{X}^{-1} \\ &= \mathbf{X}^{-1} - \epsilon \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U} \mathbf{X}^{-1} + O(\epsilon^2). \end{aligned}$$

Therefore

$$g(\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U}) - g(\mathbf{X}) = -\epsilon \mathbf{a}^\top \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U} \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{b} + O(\epsilon^2)$$

and dividing by  $\epsilon$  and letting  $\epsilon \rightarrow 0$

$$\lim_{\epsilon \rightarrow 0} \frac{g(\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U}) - g(\mathbf{X})}{\epsilon} = -\mathbf{a}^\top \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U} \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{b}.$$

This is of the form  $\mathbf{c}^\top \mathbf{U} \mathbf{d}$  with  $\mathbf{c}^\top = -\mathbf{a}^\top \mathbf{X}^{-1}$ , that is  $\mathbf{c} = -(\mathbf{X}^{-1})^\top \mathbf{a}$ , and  $\mathbf{d} = \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{b}$ . By part (a),

$$\mathbf{c}^\top \mathbf{U} \mathbf{d} = \text{tr} (\mathbf{U}^\top \mathbf{c} \mathbf{d}^\top).$$

Comparing with the definition above, and since this holds for every  $\mathbf{U}$ , the derivative is

$$\frac{\partial g(\mathbf{X})}{\partial \mathbf{X}} = \mathbf{c} \mathbf{d}^\top = -(\mathbf{X}^{-1})^\top \mathbf{a} \mathbf{b}^\top (\mathbf{X}^{-1})^\top.$$

As a check on the shapes,  $\mathbf{a} \mathbf{b}^\top$  is a matrix of the same size as  $\mathbf{X}$ , as the derivative must be.

[6 marks]

End of question 2

• Do not write in this space •

**3** We want to compute the derivative of  $\log(\det(\mathbf{X}))$  with respect to the matrix  $\mathbf{X}$ . Our strategy will be to use the fact that

$$\lim_{\epsilon \rightarrow 0} \frac{\log(\det(\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U})) - \log(\det(\mathbf{X}))}{\epsilon} = \text{tr } \mathbf{U}^T \frac{\partial \log(\det(\mathbf{X}))}{\partial \mathbf{X}}.$$

We therefore expand  $\log(\det(\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U}))$  to first order in  $\epsilon$ , subtract  $\log(\det(\mathbf{X}))$ , divide by  $\epsilon$ , rearrange and read off  $\frac{\partial \log(\det(\mathbf{X}))}{\partial \mathbf{X}}$ . However, rearranging in this case is quite complicated.

- (a) Using  $\det(\mathbf{AB}) = \det(\mathbf{A})\det(\mathbf{B})$  and  $\log(ab) = \log(a) + \log(b)$  expand  $\log(\det(\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U}))$  as a sum of  $\log(\det(\mathbf{X}))$  and another logarithm.

$$\begin{aligned} \log(\det(\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U})) &= \log(\det(\mathbf{X}(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U}))) \\ &= \log(\det(\mathbf{X}) \det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U})) \\ &= \log(\det(\mathbf{X})) + \log(\det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U})) \end{aligned}$$

[5 marks]

- (b) The hard part is to expand  $\det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{M})$ . Write out  $\det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{M})$  explicitly for a 2 dimensional matrix and expand to first order in  $\epsilon$

$$\begin{aligned} \det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{M}) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 + \epsilon M_{11} & \epsilon M_{12} \\ \epsilon M_{21} & 1 + \epsilon M_{22} \end{pmatrix} = (1 + \epsilon M_{11})(1 + \epsilon M_{22}) - \epsilon^2 M_{21} M_{12} \\ &= 1 + \epsilon(M_{11} + M_{22}) + O(\epsilon^2) \end{aligned}$$

[2 marks]

(c) For an  $n \times n$  matrix  $\mathbf{M}$  compute the determinant of

$$\det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{M}) = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 + \epsilon M_{11} & \epsilon M_{12} & \dots & \epsilon M_{1n} \\ \epsilon M_{21} & 1 + \epsilon M_{22} & \dots & \epsilon M_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \epsilon M_{n,1} & \epsilon M_{n,2} & \dots & 1 + \epsilon M_{nn} \end{pmatrix}$$

up to first order in  $\epsilon$ . Recall we can compute the determinant of a matrix  $\mathbf{X}$  as

$$\det(\mathbf{X}) = \sum_{j=1}^n (-1)^{1+j} X_{1j} \det(\hat{\mathbf{X}}_{1j})$$

where  $\hat{\mathbf{X}}_{1j}$  is the matrix obtained by removing row 1 and column  $j$  from the matrix  $\mathbf{X}$ .

Expanding the determinant we get a term equal to the product of the diagonal elements

$$\prod_{i=1}^n (1 + \epsilon M_{ii}) = 1 + \epsilon \sum_{i=1}^n M_{ii} + O(\epsilon^2)$$

all other terms in the determinant involve terms of at least order  $\epsilon^2$  so do not contribute to order  $\epsilon$ . In consequence

$$\det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{M}) = 1 + \epsilon \text{tr } \mathbf{M} + O(\epsilon^2)$$

[5 marks]

(d) For a more elegant proof we can use the fact that

$$\det(\mathbf{M}) = \prod_{i=1}^n \lambda_i \quad \text{tr } \mathbf{M} = \sum_{i=1}^n \lambda_i$$

where  $\lambda_i$  are the eigenvalues of the matrix  $\mathbf{M}$ . We will prove these results later when we look at eigen-systems. Note that if  $\mathbf{v}_i$  is an eigenvector of the matrix  $\mathbf{M}$ , with eigenvalue  $\lambda_i$  then it is an eigenvector of  $\mathbf{I} + c\mathbf{M}$  with eigenvalue  $1 + c\lambda_i$  since

$$(\mathbf{I} + c\mathbf{M})\mathbf{v}_i = \mathbf{v}_i + c\lambda_i \mathbf{v}_i = (1 + c\lambda_i)\mathbf{v}_i.$$

Using these results show that  $\det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{M}) = 1 + \epsilon \text{tr } \mathbf{M} + O(\epsilon^2)$ .

$$\begin{aligned} \det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{M}) &= \prod_{i=1}^n (1 + \epsilon \lambda_i) = 1 + \epsilon \sum_{i=1}^n \lambda_i + O(\epsilon^2) \\ &= 1 + \epsilon \text{tr } \mathbf{M} + O(\epsilon^2) \end{aligned}$$

[3 marks]

(e) Using the results

$$\begin{aligned}\log(\det(\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U})) - \log(\det(\mathbf{X})) &= \log(\det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U})) \\ \det(\mathbf{I} + \epsilon \mathbf{M}) &= 1 + \epsilon \operatorname{tr} \mathbf{M} + O(\epsilon^2)\end{aligned}$$

compute  $\frac{\partial \log(\det(\mathbf{X}))}{\partial \mathbf{X}}$ . You may use the fact that  $\log(1 + x) = x + O(x^2)$  and  $\operatorname{tr} \mathbf{A} = \operatorname{tr} \mathbf{A}^\top$ .

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We note that

$$\begin{aligned}\log(\det(\mathbf{X} + \epsilon \mathbf{U})) - \log(\det(\mathbf{X})) &= \log(1 + \epsilon \operatorname{tr} \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U} + O(\epsilon^2)) \\ &= \epsilon \operatorname{tr} \mathbf{X}^{-1} \mathbf{U} + O(\epsilon^2) \\ &= \epsilon \operatorname{tr} \mathbf{U}^\top (\mathbf{X}^{-1})^\top + O(\epsilon^2)\end{aligned}$$

Thus,

$$\frac{\partial \log(\det(\mathbf{X}))}{\partial \mathbf{X}} = (\mathbf{X}^{-1})^\top$$

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[5 marks]

End of question 3

• Do not write in this space •

**4** In this question I want you to use a numerical package to do some simple algebra. You can use MATLAB, OCTAVE, numpy in Python or any other language of your choosing. The answers are only going to be accurate up to the numerical precision of your machine (typically around  $10^{-16}$ ). For python the following may be useful

|                                       |                                                                                                                                                 |
|---------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <code>import numpy as np</code>       | import the numpy module                                                                                                                         |
| <code>A = np.random.randn(n,m)</code> | generate a matrix of normally distributed random deviates with n rows and m columns                                                             |
| <code>A.transpose()</code>            | return the transpose of <b>A</b> (does not change <b>A</b> )                                                                                    |
| <code>A@B</code>                      | matrix multiplication <b>AB</b> . Beware that <b>A*B</b> performs elementwise multiplication which is different to normal matrix multiplication |
| <code>A.trace()</code>                | returns the trace of a matrix                                                                                                                   |
| <code>np.linalg.det(A)</code>         | return the determinant of a matrix                                                                                                              |
| <code>np.round(A, 10)</code>          | rounds the elements in a matrix <b>A</b> to 10 decimal places. Makes expressions like $(A@B)@C = A@(B@C)$ easier to read                        |
| <code>np.linalg.inv(A)</code>         | inverse of matrix <b>A</b>                                                                                                                      |

Generate three  $5 \times 5$  random matrices **A**, **B** and **C** and two random vectors of length 5, **a** and **b**.

- (a) Compute **D** = **AB** and **E** = **BC**. Which quantities are the same (a) **ABC**, (b) **DE**, (c) **DC**, (d) **AE**, (e) **CD**

(a) = (c) = (d)

[2 marks]

- (b) Compute **AB** and **BA**. Are these the same?

Almost certainly these are different.

[2 marks]

- (c) Compute (a)  $a^T \mathbf{A} b$ , (b)  $a^T \mathbf{A}^T b$  (c)  $b^T \mathbf{A}^T a$  and (d)  $b^T \mathbf{A} a$ . Which quantities are the same?

(a) = (c) and (b) = (d)

[2 marks]

- (d) Compute (a)  $\text{tr } \mathbf{AB}$ , (b)  $(\text{tr } \mathbf{A})(\text{tr } \mathbf{B})$  (c)  $\text{tr } \mathbf{BA}$  and (d)  $\text{tr } \mathbf{B}^T \mathbf{A}^T$ . Which quantities are the same?

(a) = (c) = (d)

[2 marks]

- (e) Compute (a)  $\det(\mathbf{AB})$ , (b)  $(\det \mathbf{A})(\det \mathbf{B})$  (c)  $\det(\mathbf{BA})$  and (d)  $\det(\mathbf{B}^T \mathbf{A}^T)$ . Which quantities are the same?

These are all the same.

[2 marks]

(f) Although we can define the gradient with respect to a matrix using

$$\lim_{\epsilon \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(\mathbf{A} + \epsilon \mathbf{U}) - f(\mathbf{A})}{\epsilon} = \text{tr } \mathbf{U}^T \frac{\partial f(\mathbf{A})}{\partial \mathbf{A}}$$

numerically the convergence is slow. This is problematic as  $f(\mathbf{A} + \epsilon \mathbf{U})$  and  $f(\mathbf{A})$  are very close in value so when we take their difference we lose a lot of precision. A ratio that converges much more quickly is

$$\lim_{\epsilon \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(\mathbf{A} + \epsilon \mathbf{U}) - f(\mathbf{A} - \epsilon \mathbf{U})}{2\epsilon} = \text{tr } \mathbf{U}^T \frac{\partial f(\mathbf{A})}{\partial \mathbf{A}}.$$

If we want to obtain a more accurate numerical estimate of a derivative we would compute the ratio for different values of  $\epsilon$  and then extrapolate this series to when  $\epsilon \rightarrow 0$ . However, for this exercise this is unnecessary. Let  $f(\mathbf{A}) = \log(\det(\mathbf{A}))$ , set  $\mathbf{U} = \mathbf{B}$  and compute

$$\text{tr } \mathbf{U}^T \frac{\partial f(\mathbf{A})}{\partial \mathbf{A}}$$

numerically. Compare this to  $\text{tr } \mathbf{U}^T (\mathbf{A}^{-1})^T$

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Use the following

```
eps = 0.0001
estimate = (np.log(np.abs(np.linalg.det(A+eps*B)))
            - np.log(np.abs(np.linalg.det(A-eps*B)))) / (2*eps)
actual = (B.transpose()
          @ (np.linalg.inv(A)).transpose()).trace()
```

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[10 marks]

End of question 4

**END OF PAPER**